

PART III

Conclusion

CHAPTER SIX

Typology

In a recent article for Bloomberg CityLab, Benjamin Schneider highlights how the “modern” notion of homelessness that began in the 1980s differs from prior eras, in which the experience was isolated to skid rows and single-room occupancy hotels (SROs). Describing this earlier, more limited scope of homelessness in prior generations, Nan Roman, chief executive of the National Alliance to End Homelessness, suggests in the article that “there were people with mental illness, lots of people with substance abuse disorders, lots of poor people, all the same issues, but there was not widespread homelessness.” In contrast, when describing the modern manifestation, Roman states: “What changed was the housing.”¹ In particular, scarce and expensive housing—a condition that has become more prevalent in the United States over the last few decades—has produced a crisis greater in scope. This much is in broad agreement with what you’ve read so far. But as also described throughout this book, challenging housing market conditions are not evenly distributed throughout the country: Housing is more expensive and less readily available

in some places. In this chapter, we begin to examine why these market conditions vary so considerably.

At the University of Washington, I (Gregg) teach a course that covers key questions in urban economics: *Why do cities exist? Why is land in cities more expensive than in rural areas? Why do some cities grow while others shrink?* In the class, one of my favorite exercises is to ask students to guess the Zillow Home Value Index—a measure of home values in a given geographic area—for Cleveland, Ohio. To frame the conversation, I let them know that the equivalent estimate for Seattle is about \$750,000. After giving them a moment to think, I invite students to shout out their answers: “\$250,000!” “\$175,000!” “\$300,000!” “\$150,000!” Every time I deploy this exercise, I hear a similar distribution of responses. Inevitably, I get to shout back—“You are all WAY TOO HIGH!”—and to incredulous and quizzical looks, I disclose that the Zillow Home Value Index for Cleveland was about \$50,000 in 2017 and had grown to just over \$60,000 by 2019. The students are shocked. The index is less than 10 percent of the price of a home in Seattle. When I tell them the equivalent figure in San Francisco is nearly \$1.4 million, the stark differences between U.S. housing markets become abundantly clear.

To understand the roots underlying the drastic variation in housing costs around the country, we note that housing in the United States is currently understood as a commodity: something that can be bought, sold, or traded and that fluctuates in price as a function of its supply and demand. Accordingly, in this chapter, we take a closer look at the demand for and supply of housing, as well as the powerful private and public forces that help shape each term. We argue that an analysis focused exclusively on the demand for housing is insufficient—just as are attempts that solely encompass the supply side.

DEMAND

Foundational studies from housing economics suggest that the primary drivers of housing demand include population growth, employment, and income.² The relationship between these factors is intuitive: All else equal, more people with more money will increase the demand for housing. By implication, regions with the greatest demand will be those with growing populations and rising employment and incomes—when primary employers in a given city create new, high-paying jobs, housing demand rises in kind. But a key question is what types of organizations are most responsible for employment gains? And the answer is largely the private sector. As of December 2019, only 15 percent of all non-farm jobs were with federal, state, and local governments.³ Accordingly, over 85 percent of all employment is in the private sector, making private-sector employment the primary driver of housing demand in a given location.⁴ A notable exception comes from our nation's capital, where almost 30 percent of employment is in the public sector, where the ebb and flow of government employment can have a major effect on the demand for housing in the metropolitan area.

Naturally, governments influence housing demand through more means than direct employment—largely via a toolkit that can expand or restrict employment and population growth. Local governments in particular frequently seek to actively cultivate an environment that promotes job growth, often operating under the logic that job-market health promotes rising incomes, wealth accumulation, and, by extension, a larger tax base. Indeed, these factors tend to be prized above other regional characteristics as markers of a successful metropolitan area. Accordingly, states and cities frequently invest directly in or provide other

incentives to private companies in order to boost local employment. Especially in regions where jobs are in short supply, local governments often incentivize businesses with tax breaks to open a new plant or facility—thereby providing jobs for residents and, in theory, improving the local economy. Benjamin Austin and colleagues argue that place-based policies designed to increase employment in economically depressed locations could indeed yield positive results for municipalities.⁵ In general, questions about place-based policies—most notably state and local business tax incentives—revolve around cost-benefit considerations: Namely, are the economic benefits and positive spillover effects worth the loss in tax receipts? The evidence, as summarized by Cailin Slattery and Owen Zidar, suggests—in many cases—no.⁶

Recently, a high-profile example of the quest for local employment played out nationally. In 2017, Amazon announced its intention to open a second corporate headquarters (HQ2, as it was called) somewhere in North America. The second location would represent an equal to the only home the e-commerce giant has known since its founding: Seattle. The lure of thousands of high-paying jobs and a highly educated workforce was tempting for many cities. But as Derek Thompson highlighted in an article for *The Atlantic*, Amazon wanted something in return: “several billion dollars in tax incentives and a potential face-lift to the host city.”⁷

The heavy price tag did little to dissuade cities from entering the HQ2 sweepstakes: 238 cities submitted proposals, with approaches ranging from creative to outlandish. Nicky Woolf, in an article for the *New Statesmen*, called the process “The Hunger Games for cities” and highlighted some of the more absurd approaches: “A group representing Tucson, Arizona delivered

a 21-foot cactus by truck to Amazon's Seattle office. The city council of Stonecrest, Georgia, voted simply to hand over 345 acres of land for the tech giant to build its own municipality, a new town which would be called Amazon City. The night before the filing deadline, New York Mayor Bill de Blasio lit every light he could, from the rooftops of One World Trade and the Empire State Building to all of the city's wifi hotspots, in Amazon's signature shade of orange."⁸

Beyond these gimmicks, Woolf also noted a range of significant provisions included in various proposals. Chicago offered a scheme in which Amazon could recoup 50 percent of all income taxes paid by Amazon employees; Boston and San Francisco offered teams of taxpayer-funded city workers to serve the company; Atlanta offered a dedicated train car on its subway system. Altogether, many jurisdictions offered tax concessions and other incentives valued at more than \$5 billion.⁹

In response to these concessions, many critics wondered why local jurisdictions should offer considerable tax breaks to prosperous corporations like Amazon in the first place. Thompson highlighted three reasons cities and states should end this practice: (1) corporate giveaways may be redundant—that is, the company in question is likely to select a given location regardless of offered benefits; (2) companies may not deliver the anticipated job growth (see the Foxconn debacle in Wisconsin);¹⁰ and (3) it's "ludicrous for Americans to collectively pay tens of billions of dollars for huge corporations to relocate *within the United States*."¹¹ When Amazon ultimately selected New York and Northern Virginia to jointly house two new headquarters, many wondered whether the company had really needed such a drawn-out process to create new homes in the country's financial and political hubs.

Indeed, this process is worth further examination. After collecting initial submissions, Amazon released a final list of twenty potential HQ₂ destinations, which included expected candidates like Washington, D.C., New York, and Los Angeles, but also much smaller cities like Indianapolis and Pittsburgh. At the time, many argued there was little chance Amazon would select a small city like Indianapolis given the massive shock such a selection would have on the region's real-estate markets—and the challenge of attracting top technology talent to the middle of Indiana. But Indianapolis's relatively long odds didn't stop the city from assembling a benefits package to entice Jeff Bezos and his company. And in the years following its design and submission of the proposal in question, the Indiana Economic Development Corporation—which worked on the proposal with the Indianapolis Chamber of Commerce—has refused to release details of the proposal. This refusal prompted a lawsuit that demands its public release, including details of any tax breaks offered to Amazon.¹²

Why the reluctance to release the proposal? Certainly, the city likely fears the backlash that many communities faced when they disclosed the scope of the incentives offered to one of the wealthiest companies in the world.¹³ But concern about corporate hand-outs and potential misuse of public funds wasn't the only concern raised during the HQ₂ process. An important counterargument to the bid process raised the potential *negative* consequences of Amazon coming to town. Much of the tech talent would likely need to be imported, and the resulting population boom could present big challenges for the community. Seattle, for many, was the canary in the coal mine. The tech boom that has brought tens of thousands of employees to Seattle has changed the city in material respects.¹⁴ Critics pointed to congestion, sky-high

housing prices, displacement, and homelessness—and drew a causal arrow connecting Amazon’s rise with Seattle’s housing squeeze. These concerns are broadly summarized by Slattery and Zidar in their evaluation of state and local business incentives: “How much do these policies improve the well-being of underemployed and low-income workers? Are the most distressed places able to attract firms with tax incentives? . . . At the local level, is the newly attracted firm stimulating hiring of local residents who were previously unemployed and working in low-wage jobs? Or as was argued in the case of Amazon’s proposal for putting a headquarters in New York City, are all the good jobs going to people moving in from other locations, leaving locals with more congestion and higher prices?”¹⁵

Some cities anticipated these concerns in their proposals to Amazon. Minneapolis, for example, offered far lower tax benefits than did other cities—largely to ward off potential negative implications for existing corporate residents (including Target Corporation) and the fiscal implications of large tax incentives. After Minneapolis was not included as a finalist for HQ2, *The Minnesota Daily* expressed relief in an editorial: “Having to provide incentives as high as \$7 billion in order to win the bid is a legislative and political burden; one the state might not have been able to match. Additionally, housing has been a point of contention in the Twin Cities because of rapid growth. Affordable housing and gentrification were a hot button issue in the municipal elections during the fall, and the problems facing the city in this regard would grow if Amazon touched down in Minnesota.”¹⁶

Amazon’s search for a second headquarters highlights the manners in which public and private forces contribute to the demand for housing. Local governments are not powerless in

this arena; many times, they actively work to stimulate the local economy, and by extension, prod the demand side of the equation. In other words, rather than sitting on the sideline as labor and housing markets run their course, governments actively stimulate or limit the demand for housing. Local policymakers must navigate the tension of maximizing employment and income while minimizing the potential consequences of stimulative policies and programs. The case of Minneapolis illustrates a city concerned about these potential consequences. And while it's clear the economic trajectories of many Rust Belt cities—characterized by declining employment, incomes, and population—are to be avoided, the consequences of hyper-growth (as seen in Seattle and other boomtowns) offer a cautionary tale to other cities.

There's a contradiction at play here. Local jurisdictions tend to be eager to bring new jobs to a community. They offer incentives, issue permits, and fast-track construction of new buildings. Less frequently over the course of a given job-courting routine are municipalities made to think about where these new employees will live. Indeed, by and large, while economic development agencies actively bring employers and employees to a region, they take a *laissez-faire* approach to housing these employees. Noting this disconnect, Stephen Norman, executive director of the King County Housing Authority, quipped, "Homes are where jobs go at night."

SUPPLY

Like the demand for housing, its supply is determined by a range of public and private actors. Certainly, since the vast majority of housing in the United States is constructed privately, housing

supply necessarily depends on the actions of private firms. And absent government support or subsidies, in a vacuum, housing will tend to be constructed where it can be built profitably. But housing isn't built in a vacuum. Governments actively stimulate or restrict supply through a range of policies and programs designed to incentivize production or govern the production process.

As demonstrated in the previous chapter, the development of housing doesn't depend solely on population growth. Some high-growth regions construct plenty of housing; others seem to have persistent housing shortages. To think through the manners in which housing supply differs from region to region, we emphasize the concept of supply elasticity—the degree to which the supply of housing changes given a change in its price. As outlined by Albert Saiz, two primary factors drive a community's supply response: the geographic attributes of an area (including mountains and bodies of water) and the local regulatory environment. Both factors can promote greater housing production or restrict it. In a somewhat cruel irony, the topographical attributes that make some cities desirable also make it difficult to accommodate growing populations. According to Saiz's estimates of supply elasticity, the ten cities with the least responsive housing-supply responses all border either water or mountains. Regions with the most elastic (responsive) supply tend to be found in flat, land-locked locations, where geographic barriers to new housing construction are scant.¹⁷

Despite the importance of topography, researchers and policy-makers generally pay more attention to Saiz's second factor: regulations. Fair enough—geography tends to be fixed within a given city. Accordingly, *changes* to a supply response (i.e., changes to a market's supply elasticity) are often solely a function of the local regulatory environment. One of the most hotly debated topics

in the current environment is the notion of single-family zoning. Residential zoning is one of the seemingly innocuous rules and regulations that has played a major role in the housing crises that are gripping cities around the nation. Broadly, zoning regulations help explain why multifamily housing isn't more abundant in Seattle, for example: It's illegal on roughly 70 percent of the residential parcels in the city.¹⁸ Seattle isn't alone in its reliance on single-family homes to house its residents. A recent article in *The New York Times* highlighted that zoning outliers like New York City and Washington, D.C.—in which only 15 and 36 percent of parcels are respectively zoned single-family—stand in stark contrast to many other cities in the country—including Los Angeles, Minneapolis, and Charlotte—where over 70 percent of residential land is reserved for single-family homes. The authors call single-family zoning “practically gospel in America, embraced by homeowners and local governments to protect neighborhoods of tidy houses from denser development nearby.”¹⁹

As cities grow, challenges associated with a reliance on single-family homes become more and more apparent. In the absence of zoning reform, most growth must be accommodated by the small minority of parcels that permit multifamily housing. In rapidly growing areas, the approach is simply untenable—and accordingly, some jurisdictions, including Minneapolis and the state of Oregon, have recently taken steps to ban single-family zoning. (Such a ban does not actually outlaw single-family homes; rather it bans zoning that precludes the construction of multifamily dwellings on any parcel.) Advocates see these kinds of zoning reforms as key tools to address the housing shortages apparent in many U.S. cities.

But zoning isn't the only regulatory impediment to greater housing development. A frequently complex regulatory approval

process also explains why construction—both single-family and multifamily—is difficult to pursue even where it is legally permitted. Examples of other regulatory constraints include building codes and various forms of land use restrictions, among them minimum lot sizes, height limits, setbacks, and open-space requirements.²⁰ Researchers at the University of Pennsylvania have leveraged these factors to develop an index that measures the stringency of land use regulations: the Wharton Residential Land Use Regulation Index. Saiz employed this index—combined with his topographical analysis—to generate the estimates of housing supply elasticity we reference throughout the following sections.

To the extent that policies follow politics, below the surface of an otherwise benign regulatory landscape is a swath of often contentious local politics that complicate efforts to change the way cities are physically structured. One of the hallmarks of American society is homeownership. Over time, roughly two-thirds of U.S. households have owned their own condominium or single-family home, and home equity is the largest source of wealth for most U.S. households.²¹ A logical consequence of this reality is that households seek to preserve (or grow) the value of their home equity by any means necessary. William Fischel coined the phrase the “Homevoter Hypothesis” to describe the ways in which homeowners support the value of their most important asset via political participation and the exertion of control over local governments. Fischel summarized: “My contribution is to point out that one of the fundamental changes has been to make homeowners acutely defensive about changes in land use that might possibly affect their home’s value. . . . It might be better for all concerned if homeowners could again see their homes as steady investments and good places to live rather than a way to get rich.”²²

A conspicuous example of Fischel's hypothesis comes by way of homeowners opposing new residential development.²³ In *Generation Priced Out: Who Gets to Live in the New Urban America*, Randy Shaw highlights a generational conflict whereby younger generations—who struggle to afford housing in many cities—support greater residential development. Baby boomers, on the other hand, the primary beneficiaries of the generational home-equity lottery, “have enjoyed soaring home values by preventing the construction of new housing in their communities.”²⁴ The contentious debate around eliminating single-family zoning provides real-time examples of the Homevoter Hypothesis at work. Single-family homeowners—even self-described political progressives—may aggressively oppose zoning changes that would bring multifamily housing to their neighborhoods. In this manner, we can understand single-family zoning as exclusionary—and the current debate as highlighting how homeowners seek to preserve the exclusive character of their neighborhoods. Common bogeymen deployed to oppose zoning changes include congestion, inadequate infrastructure, crowded schools, and changes to “neighborhood character.” (Note that character arguments often drove the active, publicly buoyed racial segregation of U.S. cities’ public and private housing.)

No place exemplifies the challenges of new housing construction better than California. In *Golden Gates: Fighting for Housing in America*, Conor Dougherty demonstrates how local politics and special interests converge to prevent or limit housing development. In 2015, then governor of California Jerry Brown proposed streamlining the construction process for new housing in exchange for commitments to reserve units for lower-income households. Dougherty describes the fate of the potential deal:

As the proposal made its way through the capitol, cities, environmental groups, and construction unions all rose up against it. Each of these groups wanted different things—cities wanted more say over what could be built where, environmentalists wanted more environmental reviews, and unions wanted a prevailing wage guarantee that favored workers—but what united them was a fear that if building was easier, they would lose their leverage over projects. That was why housing law was so hard to streamline: A complicated process was full of political profit. Negotiations broke down and the governor’s proposal died.²⁵

Dougherty’s description is important. Zoning, code, and review often appear as banal, fixed facets of the development process, but behind these regulations are people. Their interests and political interactions shape the viability of any idealized policy crafted to accommodate growing populations.

LOCAL CONTEXTS

As we noted in the previous chapter, some housing-market conditions are less forgiving than others, and these differences help to explain variation in rates of homelessness. Thus far, here, we’ve suggested that the price elasticity of supply of housing helps to explain variation in these market conditions. But elasticity alone is insufficient to explain whether we might consider a given region’s supply to be *adequate*. Adequacy or sufficiency judgments about a housing market naturally require the consideration of both the demand for housing *and* the associated supply response. Consider Figure 26, which plots cities’ post-recession population growth rates versus their housing supply elasticities. We have placed ellipses around similar cities as a first step toward developing an explanatory typology:

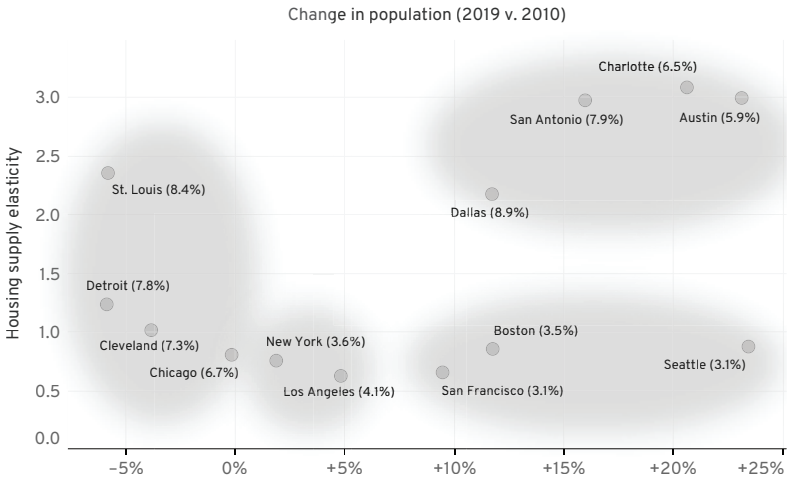


Figure 26. Population growth versus housing supply elasticity. Dots indicate U.S. cities; parentheses indicate 2010–2019 rental vacancy rates. Data source: U.S. Census Bureau / Saiz (2010)

The figure suggests four different groups of cities. On the left, we see St. Louis, Detroit, Cleveland, and Chicago—all of which have flat to negative population growth. Each of these cities also has a relatively low rate of per capita homelessness. In other words, in terms of housing supply and vacancy rates, supply elasticity doesn't matter nearly as much where there is limited demand. Without population growth, markets aren't pressured to increase housing supply. Existing housing supply is generally adequate, as demonstrated by the relatively high vacancy rates in each location. But in this group of cities, we still see variation; St. Louis has a higher supply elasticity than Detroit, Cleveland, or Chicago. The difference here can be attributed to topography: a key input to the supply elasticity formula. Because Detroit, Cleveland, and Chicago all border Great Lakes, these

metropolitan areas can only expand in one direction—away from the water. Landlocked St. Louis doesn't have this constraint. By implication, if population growth were to ramp up in Chicago, Detroit, and Cleveland, it's possible their housing markets could tighten (with higher prices following after existing vacant units have been occupied). As described in the prior chapter, we're already seeing evidence of this in Detroit. We would expect St. Louis, due to its favorable topography, to be slightly more accommodating.

Moving counterclockwise in the graphic, the next category of cities includes New York and Los Angeles. The two largest cities in the country have similar dynamics. They have enormous populations, exhibit modest growth, and have low supply elasticities. As cited previously, these dynamics help to explain the high housing costs and low vacancy rates observed in these cities. As we know, rates of homelessness are also high in both cities. Note that from a supply-elasticity standpoint, Chicago doesn't differ meaningfully from New York or Los Angeles. The difference is that Chicago is no longer a growing city—and as a result, doesn't experience the same housing pressures.

In the lower-right corner of the graphic are the coastal boomtowns of Boston, Seattle, and San Francisco. These cities are marked by high population growth and low supply elasticities—a dangerous combination for renters. The logical outcomes are housing markets with high rents and low vacancies. (All three cities have vacancy rates below four percent.) It should come as no surprise to readers by this point that these locations also see high rates of homelessness.

The final grouping of cities resides in the upper-right portion of the graphic: cities with high growth and high supply elasticity. These Sun Belt cities see population growth rates similar

to those in Seattle and San Francisco, but what sets them apart from their coastal peers is a robust supply response: We would expect cities with high supply elasticities to expand housing supply more rapidly as populations grow, and the high rental vacancy rates in these cities provide evidence that they do. This observation helps explain why the robust population growth in Charlotte, North Carolina, has not produced the harsh housing-market dynamics that exist in other growing metros like San Francisco and Seattle. Given these dynamics, we propose grouping cities as shown in Table 2.

This typology summarizes the prior analysis by linking population–elasticity relationships with their subsequent implications for homelessness. Two types of cities are associated with lower relative rates of homelessness: those in the Rust Belt and those in the Sun Belt. For Rust Belt cities, population loss or stagnation drives a more accommodating housing market. Given that housing is a durable asset, as population falls, housing availability rises. In these circumstances, housing supply often outpaces demand, producing lower rents and higher vacancy rates. The case of Rust Belt cities provides compelling evidence that reasonably abundant and affordable housing precludes homelessness, even in regions where poverty is prevalent.

The second type—Sun Belt cities—includes growing metro areas in the South like Austin, Charlotte, Dallas, and San Antonio. Each of these cities has experienced double-digit percentage population growth since the end of the Great Recession. Unlike Rust Belt cities, these cities have robust economies and growing populations. How do these vibrant cities manage to maintain relatively lower rates of homelessness? As these cities have grown and demand for housing has increased, they’ve

TABLE 2
A Typology of Cities: Growth, Housing Responses,
and Homelessness

Type	Rate of Homelessness
I Rust Belt (low to negative growth)	Low
II Sun Belt (high growth; elastic supply)	Low
III Megacities (modest growth; inelastic supply)	High
IV Boomtowns (high growth; inelastic supply)	High

followed with a robust supply response, maintaining moderately priced housing and medium-to-high vacancy rates despite the growth.²⁶

The other two categories—growing megacities and boomtowns—share a common denominator: inelastic housing supplies. As we know from Figure 26, low supply elasticity isn’t a problem when population growth slows or turns negative—consider the case of Chicago. But unlike Chicago, New York and Los Angeles have continued to grow, albeit at a relatively modest pace; and this growth has continued to pressure the housing market, given the very limited supply response in these cities. Accordingly, rents remain elevated and vacancy rates are low. As unaccommodating housing market conditions continue to apply pressure to a wide range of precariously housed households, high rates of homelessness persist.

The final group in our typology of cities are boomtowns—currently illustrated by the cases of Boston, Seattle, and San Francisco. These cities embody the perfect storm for housing instability and homelessness: high growth, low supply elasticity, high housing costs, and extremely low vacancy rates. It’s in this manner that homelessness can thrive amid affluence. The

troubling conundrum for local leaders in these cities is how to respond. They tend not to aspire to become the next Detroit or Cleveland—cities marked by population loss. Population growth, high wages, and a robust economy are generally considered markers of a successful city. But what if these very attributes are also responsible for the homelessness crisis that exists in these cities? We, and many others, have already presented a case about the relationship between affluence and homelessness at the metropolitan level.²⁷ All else being equal, we might normatively say that prosperity is indeed a desirable goal for a municipality to pursue on behalf of its residents. We shouldn't expect cities to actively impede prosperous opportunities. How, then, can these communities house the thousands of people who continue to move to these cities—as well as the people who already live there?

We also note that our typology aligns well with other statistical models of cities that have sought to cluster regions as a function of their socioeconomic and housing profiles. Glynn and colleagues, for example, grouped regions based on trends in rates of homelessness, population, and affordability. The model identified six clusters of CoCs, each of which tended to correspond to geographic regions (despite geographic data not being offered to the clustering algorithm). These regions are in rough agreement with ours: namely, one encompasses the Midwest, Mid-Atlantic, and parts of the southeast (i.e., including our Rust Belt cities), another includes New England, Florida, the mountain west and central United States (including our Sun Belt), and a third includes most of the West Coast and large East Coast cities like Boston and Washington, D.C. (combining our Types III and IV, megacities and boomtowns).²⁸

We don't claim that all cities fit neatly into the above typology; nor do we suggest that cities remain in the same category

indefinitely. Indeed, we note early evidence that Austin may be transitioning out of the Sun Belt category as housing production begins to lag and rates of homelessness begin to rise. A recent white paper from the Kinder Institute for Urban Research at Rice University suggests that such persistently high population growth is beginning to strain the Sun Belt cities previously known for abundant housing and relatively low costs. Without appropriate planning and policy responses, these cities risk a rise in housing cost burden and income inequality.²⁹ And we don't expect the housing market conditions we observe over the period of our study (2007–2019) to persist in perpetuity.

Indeed, as described by David Collier and colleagues, our typology includes “ideal” categories or types and isn't intended to cover all possible examples.³⁰ (Readers will note that not all cities in our sample are included in our typology.) We deploy ideal types to highlight fundamental relationships and their implications. In this case, we've sought to illustrate the relationship between population growth (demand) and supply elasticity—and, in turn, how those forces converge to produce the housing market dynamics that help explain regional variation in rates of homelessness. Given the conundrum above, then—that cities are incentivized politically to pursue an economic agenda that, without careful housing market calibration, will also spur housing instability—the burning question is what to do about it. The next chapter offers a vision for what this calibration might look like and how cities and our nation might go about nurturing an environment that affords it.